3.1 Limits and Continuity

INTRODUCTION The most important concept in elementary calculus is that of the limit. Recall that $\lim_{x \to x_0} f(x) = L$ intuitively means that values $f(x)$ of the function f can be made arbitrarily close to the real number L if values of x are chosen sufficiently close to, but not equal to, the real number x_0. In real analysis, the concepts of continuity, the derivative, and the definite integral were *all* defined using the concept of a limit. Complex limits play an equally important role in study of complex analysis. The concept of a complex limit is similar to that of a real limit in the sense that $\lim_{z \to z_0} f(z) = L$ will mean that the values $f(z)$ of the complex function f can be made arbitrarily close to the complex number L if values of z are chosen sufficiently close to, but not equal to, the complex number z_0. Although outwardly similar, there is an important difference between these two concepts of limit. In a real limit, there are two directions from which x can approach x_0 on the real line, namely, from the left or from the right. In a complex limit, however, there are infinitely many directions from which z can approach z_0 in the complex plane. In order for a complex limit to exist, each way in which z can approach z_0 must yield the same limiting value.

In this section we will define the limit of a complex function, examine some of its properties, and introduce the concept of continuity for functions of a complex variable.

3.1.1 Limits

Real Limits The description of a real limit given in the section introduction is only an intuitive definition of this concept. In order to give the rigorous definition of a real limit, we must precisely state what is meant by the phrases "arbitrarily close to" and "sufficiently close to." The first thing to recognize is that a precise statement of these terms uses absolute values since $|a - b|$ measures the distance between two points on the real number line. On the real line, the points x and x_0 are "close" if $|x - x_0|$ is a small positive number. Similarly, the points $f(x)$ and L are "close" if $|f(x) - L|$ is a small positive number. In mathematics, it is customary to let the Greek letters ε and δ represent small positive real numbers. Hence, the expression "$f(x)$ can be made arbitrarily close to L" can be made precise by stating that for any real number $\varepsilon > 0$, x can be chosen so that $|f(x) - L| < \varepsilon$. In our intuitive definition we require that $|f(x) - L| < \varepsilon$ whenever values of x are "sufficiently close to, but not equal to, x_0." This means that there is some distance $\delta > 0$ with the property that if x is within distance δ of x_0 and $x \neq x_0$, then $|f(x) - L| < \varepsilon$. In other words, if $0 < |x - x_0| < \delta$, then $|f(x) - L| < \varepsilon$. The real number δ is not unique and, in general, depends on the choice of ε, the function f, and the point x_0. In summary, we have the following precise definition of the real limit:

A review of real limits can be found in Section 3.1 of the student study guide. ▶

The limit of f as x tends to x_0 exists and is equal to L if for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there exists a $\delta > 0$ such that $|f(x) - L| < \varepsilon$ whenever $0 < |x - x_0| < \delta$. (1)

The geometric interpretation of (1) is shown in FIGURE 3.1.1. In this figure we see that the graph of the function $y = f(x)$ over the interval $(x_0 - \delta, x_0 + \delta)$, excluding the point x_0, lies between the lines $y = L - \varepsilon$ and $y = L + \varepsilon$ shown dashed in Figure 3.1.1. In the terminology of mappings, the interval $(x_0 - \delta,\ x_0 + \delta)$, excluding the point $x = x_0$, shown in color on the x-axis is mapped onto the set shown in black in the interval $(L - \varepsilon,\ L + \varepsilon)$ on the y-axis. For the limit to exist, the relationship

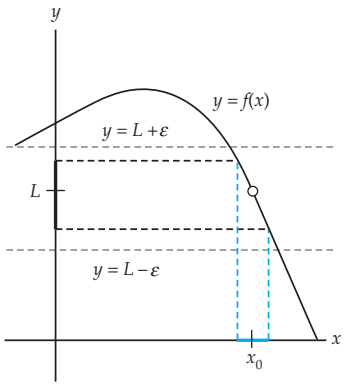
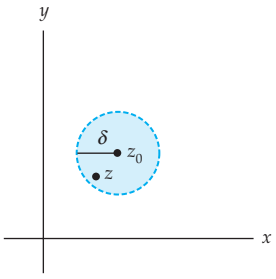
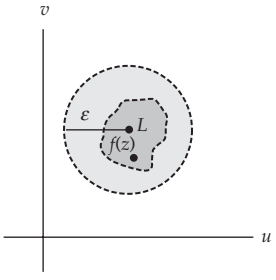


FIGURE 3.1.1 Geometric meaning of a real limit



(a) Deleted δ-neighborhood of z_0



(b) ε-neighborhood of L

FIGURE 3.1.2 The geometric meaning of a complex limit

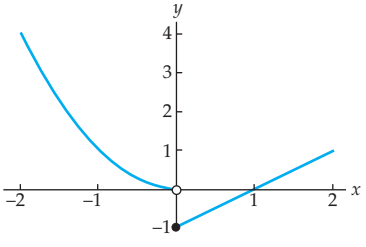


FIGURE 3.1.3 The limit of f does not exist as x approaches 0

exhibited in Figure 3.1.1 must exist for any choice of $\varepsilon > 0$. We also see in Figure 3.1.1 that if a smaller ε is chosen, then a smaller δ may be needed.

Complex Limits A complex limit is, in essence, the same as a real limit except that it is based on a notion of "close" in the complex plane. Because the distance in the complex plane between two points z_1 and z_2 is given by the modulus of the difference of z_1 and z_2, the precise definition of a complex limit will involve $|z_2 - z_1|$. For example, the phrase "$f(z)$ can be made arbitrarily close to the complex number L," can be stated precisely as: for every $\varepsilon > 0$, z can be chosen so that $|f(z) - L| < \varepsilon$. Since the modulus of a complex number is a *real* number, both ε and δ still represent small positive *real* numbers in the following definition of a complex limit. The complex analogue of (1) is:

DEFINITION 3.1.1 Limit of a Complex Function

Suppose that a complex function f is defined in a deleted neighborhood of z_0 and suppose that L is a complex number. The **limit of f as z tends to z_0 exists and is equal to L**, written as $\lim_{z \to z_0} f(z) = L$, if for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there exists a $\delta > 0$ such that $|f(z) - L| < \varepsilon$ whenever $0 < |z - z_0| < \delta$.

For complex functions, we rely on the concept of complex mappings to gain a geometric understanding of Definition 3.1.1. Recall from Section 1.5 that the set of points w in the complex plane satisfying $|w - L| < \varepsilon$ is called a neighborhood of L, and that this set consists of all points in the complex plane lying within, but not on, a circle of radius ε centered at the point L. Also recall that the set of points satisfying the inequalities $0 < |z - z_0| < \delta$ is called a deleted neighborhood of z_0 and consists of all points in the neighborhood $|z - z_0| < \delta$ excluding the point z_0. By Definition 3.1.1, if $\lim_{z \to z_0} f(z) = L$ and if ε is any positive number, then there is a deleted neighborhood of z_0 of radius δ with the property that for every point z in this deleted neighborhood, $f(z)$ is in the ε neighborhood of L. That is, f maps the deleted neighborhood $0 < |z - z_0| < \delta$ in the z-plane into the neighborhood $|w - L| < \varepsilon$ in the w-plane. In FIGURE 3.1.2(a), the deleted neighborhood of z_0 shown in color is mapped onto the set shown in dark gray in Figure 3.1.2(b). As required by Definition 3.1.1, the image lies within the ε-neighborhood of L shown in light gray in Figure 3.1.2(b).

Complex and real limits have many common properties, but there is at least one very important difference. For real functions, $\lim_{x \to x_0} f(x) = L$ if and only if $\lim_{x \to x_0^+} f(x) = L$ and $\lim_{x \to x_0^-} f(x) = L$. That is, there are two directions from which x can approach x_0 on the real line, from the right (denoted by $x \to x_0^+$) or from the left (denoted by $x \to x_0^-$). The real limit exists if and only if these two one-sided limits have the same value. For example, consider the real function defined by:

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} x^2, & x < 0 \\ x - 1, & x \geq 0 \end{cases}.$$

The limit of f as x approaches to 0 does not exist since $\lim_{x \to 0^-} f(x) = \lim_{x \to 0^-} x^2 = 0$, but $\lim_{x \to 0^+} f(x) = \lim_{x \to 0^+} (x - 1) = -1$. See FIGURE 3.1.3.

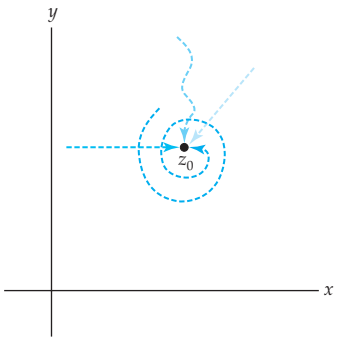


FIGURE 3.1.4 Different ways to approach z_0 in a limit

For limits of complex functions, z is allowed to approach z_0 from *any* direction in the complex plane, that is, along any curve or path through z_0. See **FIGURE 3.1.4**. In order that $\lim_{z\to z_0} f(z)$ exists and equals L, we require that $f(z)$ approach the same complex number L along every possible curve through z_0. Put in a negative way:

Criterion for the Nonexistence of a Limit

If f approaches two complex numbers $L_1 \neq L_2$ along two different curves or paths through z_0, then $\lim_{z\to z_0} f(z)$ does not exist.

EXAMPLE 1 A Limit That Does Not Exist

Show that $\lim_{z\to 0} \dfrac{z}{\bar{z}}$ does not exist.

Solution We show that this limit does not exist by finding two different ways of letting z approach 0 that yield different values for $\lim_{z\to 0} \dfrac{z}{\bar{z}}$. First, we let z approach 0 along the real axis. That is, we consider complex numbers of the form $z = x + 0i$ where the real number x is approaching 0. For these points we have:

$$\lim_{z\to 0} \frac{z}{\bar{z}} = \lim_{x\to 0} \frac{x + 0i}{x - 0i} = \lim_{x\to 0} 1 = 1. \tag{2}$$

On the other hand, if we let z approach 0 along the imaginary axis, then $z = 0 + iy$ where the real number y is approaching 0. For this approach we have:

$$\lim_{z\to 0} \frac{z}{\bar{z}} = \lim_{y\to 0} \frac{0 + iy}{0 - iy} = \lim_{y\to 0} (-1) = -1. \tag{3}$$

Since the values in (2) and (3) are not the same, we conclude that $\lim_{z\to 0} \dfrac{z}{\bar{z}}$ does not exist. ☰

The limit $\lim_{z\to 0} \dfrac{z}{\bar{z}}$ from Example 1 did not exist because the values of $\lim_{z\to 0} \dfrac{z}{\bar{z}}$ as z approached 0 along the real and imaginary axes did not agree. However, even if these two values did agree, the complex limit may still fail to exist. See Problems 19 and 20 in Exercises 3.1. In general, computing values of $\lim_{z\to z_0} f(z)$ as z approaches z_0 from different directions, as in Example 1, can prove that a limit *does not exist*, but this technique cannot be used to prove that a limit *does exist*. In order to prove that a limit does exist we must use Definition 3.1.1 directly. This requires demonstrating that for every positive real number ε there is an appropriate choice of δ that meets the requirements of Definition 3.1.1. Such proofs are commonly called "epsilon-delta proofs." Even for relatively simple functions, epsilon-delta proofs can be quite involved. Since this is an introductory text, we restrict our attention to what, in our opinion, are straightforward examples of epsilon-delta proofs.

EXAMPLE 2 An Epsilon-Delta Proof of a Limit

Prove that $\lim_{z\to 1+i} (2 + i)z = 1 + 3i$.

Solution According to Definition 3.1.1, $\lim_{z\to 1+i} (2 + i)z = 1 + 3i$, if, for every $\varepsilon > 0$, there is a $\delta > 0$ such that $|(2 + i)z - (1 + 3i)| < \varepsilon$ whenever $0 < |z - (1 + i)| < \delta$. Proving that the limit exists requires that we find an appropriate value of δ for a given

value of ε. In other words, for a given value of ε we must find a positive number δ with the property that if $0 < |z-(1+i)| < \delta$, then $|(2+i)z-(1+3i)| < \varepsilon$. One way of finding δ is to "work backward." The idea is to start with the inequality:

$$|(2+i)z-(1+3i)| < \varepsilon \tag{4}$$

and then use properties of complex numbers and the modulus to manipulate this inequality until it involves the expression $|z-(1+i)|$. Thus, a natural first step is to factor $(2+i)$ out of the left-hand side of (4):

$$|2+i| \cdot \left| z - \frac{1+3i}{2+i} \right| < \varepsilon. \tag{5}$$

Because $|2+i| = \sqrt{5}$ and $\dfrac{1+3i}{2+i} = 1+i$, (5) is equivalent to:

$$\sqrt{5} \cdot |z-(1+i)| < \varepsilon \quad \text{or} \quad |z-(1+i)| < \frac{\varepsilon}{\sqrt{5}}. \tag{6}$$

Thus, (6) indicates that we should take $\delta = \varepsilon/\sqrt{5}$. Keep in mind that the choice of δ is not unique. Our choice of $\delta = \varepsilon/\sqrt{5}$ is a result of the particular algebraic manipulations that we employed to obtain (6). Having found δ we now present the formal proof that $\lim_{z\to 1+i}(2+i)z = 1+3i$ that does not indicate how the choice of δ was made:

Given $\varepsilon > 0$, let $\delta = \varepsilon/\sqrt{5}$. If $0 < |z-(1+i)| < \delta$, then we have $|z-(1+i)| < \varepsilon/\sqrt{5}$. Multiplying both sides of the last inequality by $|2+i| = \sqrt{5}$ we obtain:

$$|2+i| \cdot |z-(1+i)| < \sqrt{5} \cdot \frac{\varepsilon}{\sqrt{5}} \quad \text{or} \quad |(2+i)z-(1+3i)| < \varepsilon.$$

Therefore, $|(2+i)z-(1+3i)| < \varepsilon$ whenever $0 < |z-(1+i)| < \delta$. So, according to Definition 3.1.1, we have proven that $\lim_{z\to 1+i}(2+i)z = 1+3i$. ☰

Real Multivariable Limits The epsilon-delta proof from Example 2 illustrates the important fact that although the theory of complex limits is based on Definition 3.1.1, this definition does not provide a convenient method for *computing* limits. We now present a practical method for *computing* complex limits in Theorem 3.1.1. In addition to being a useful computational tool, this theorem also establishes an important connection between the *complex* limit of $f(z) = u(x, y) + iv(x, y)$ and the *real* limits of the real-valued functions of two real variables $u(x, y)$ and $v(x, y)$. Since every complex function is completely determined by the real functions u and v, it should not be surprising that the limit of a complex function can be expressed in terms of the real limits of u and v.

Before stating Theorem 3.1.1, we recall some of the important concepts regarding limits of real-valued functions of two real variables $F(x, y)$. The following definition of $\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} F(x, y) = L$ is analogous to both (1) and Definition 3.1.1.

Limit of the Real Function $F(x, y)$

The limit of F as (x, y) tends to (x_0, y_0) exists and is equal to the real number L if for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there exists a $\delta > 0$ such that $|F(x, y) - L| < \varepsilon$ whenever $0 < \sqrt{(x-x_0)^2 + (y-y_0)^2} < \delta$. (7)

The expression $\sqrt{(x-x_0)^2 + (y-y_0)^2}$ in (7) represents the distance between the points (x, y) and (x_0, y_0) in the Cartesian plane. Using (7), it is relatively easy

to prove that:

$$\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} 1 = 1, \quad \lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} x = x_0, \text{ and } \lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} y = y_0. \tag{8}$$

If $\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} F(x, y) = L$ and $\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} G(x, y) = M$, then (7) can also be used to show:

$$\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} cF(x,\ y) = cL, \quad c \text{ a real constant}, \tag{9}$$

$$\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} (F(x,\ y) \pm G(x,\ y)) = L \pm M, \tag{10}$$

$$\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} F(x,\ y) \cdot G(x,\ y) = L \cdot M, \tag{11}$$

and

$$\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} \frac{F(x,\ y)}{G(x,\ y)} = \frac{L}{M}, \ M \neq 0. \tag{12}$$

Limits involving polynomial expressions in x and y can be easily computed using the limits in (8) combined with properties (9)–(12). For example,

$$\begin{aligned}\lim_{(x,y)\to(1,2)} \left(3xy^2 - y\right) &= 3\left(\lim_{(x,y)\to(1,2)} x\right)\left(\lim_{(x,y)\to(1,2)} y\right)\left(\lim_{(x,y)\to(1,2)} y\right) - \lim_{(x,y)\to(1,2)} y \\ &= 3 \cdot 1 \cdot 2 \cdot 2 - 2 = 10.\end{aligned}$$

In general, if $p(x,\ y)$ is a two-variable polynomial function, then (8)–(12) can be used to show that

$$\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} p(x,\ y) = p(x_0,\ y_0). \tag{13}$$

If $p(x,\ y)$ and $q(x,\ y)$ are two-variable polynomial functions and $q(x_0,\ y_0) \neq 0$, then (13) and (12) give:

$$\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} \frac{p(x, y)}{q(x, y)} = \frac{p(x_0, y_0)}{q(x_0, y_0)}. \tag{14}$$

We now present Theorem 3.1.1, which relates real limits of $u(x,\ y)$ and $v(x,\ y)$ with the complex limit of $f(z) = u(x,\ y) + iv(x,\ y)$. An epsilon-delta proof of Theorem 3.1.1 can be found in Appendix I.

THEOREM 3.1.1 Real and Imaginary Parts of a Limit

Suppose that $f(z) = u(x,\ y) + iv(x,\ y)$, $z_0 = x_0 + iy_0$, and $L = u_0 + iv_0$. Then $\lim_{z\to z_0} f(z) = L$ if and only if

$$\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} u(x,\ y) = u_0 \quad \text{and} \quad \lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} v(x, y) = v_0.$$

Theorem 3.1.1 has many uses. First and foremost, it allows us to compute many complex limits by simply computing a pair of real limits.

EXAMPLE 3 Using Theorem 3.1.1 to Compute a Limit

Use Theorem 3.1.1 to compute $\lim_{z\to 1+i} \left(z^2 + i\right)$.

Solution Since $f(z) = z^2 + i = x^2 - y^2 + (2xy + 1)i$, we can apply Theorem 3.1.1 with $u(x,\ y) = x^2 - y^2$, $v(x,\ y) = 2xy + 1$, and $z_0 = 1 + i$. Identifying $x_0 = 1$ and

$y_0 = 1$, we find u_0 and v_0 by computing the two real limits:

$$u_0 = \lim_{(x,y)\to(1,1)} \left(x^2 - y^2\right) \quad \text{and} \quad v_0 = \lim_{(x,y)\to(1,1)} (2xy + 1).$$

Since both of these limits involve only multivariable polynomial functions, we can use (13) to obtain:

$$u_0 = \lim_{(x,y)\to(1,1)} \left(x^2 - y^2\right) = 1^2 - 1^2 = 0$$

and

$$v_0 = \lim_{(x,y)\to(1,1)} (2xy + 1) = 2 \cdot 1 \cdot 1 + 1 = 3,$$

and so $L = u_0 + iv_0 = 0 + i(3) = 3i$. Therefore, $\lim_{z\to 1+i} \left(z^2 + i\right) = 3i$. ☰

In addition to computing specific limits, Theorem 3.1.1 is also an important theoretical tool that allows us to derive many properties of complex limits from properties of real limits. The following theorem gives an example of this procedure.

THEOREM 3.1.2 Properties of Complex Limits

Suppose that f and g are complex functions. If $\lim_{z\to z_0} f(z) = L$ and $\lim_{z\to z_0} g(z) = M$, then

(*i*) $\lim_{z\to z_0} cf(z) = cL$, c a complex constant,

(*ii*) $\lim_{z\to z_0} (f(z) \pm g(z)) = L \pm M$,

(*iii*) $\lim_{z\to z_0} f(z) \cdot g(z) = L \cdot M$, and

(*iv*) $\lim_{z\to z_0} \dfrac{f(z)}{g(z)} = \dfrac{L}{M}$, provided $M \neq 0$.

Proof of (*i*) Each part of Theorem 3.1.2 follows from Theorem 3.1.1 and the analogous property (9)–(12). We will prove part (*i*) and leave the remaining parts as exercises.

Let $f(z) = u(x,\ y) + iv(x,\ y)$, $z_0 = x_0 + iy_0$, $L = u_0 + iv_0$, and $c = a + ib$. Since $\lim_{z\to z_0} f(z) = L$, it follows from Theorem 3.1.1 that

$$\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} u(x,\ y) = u_0 \quad \text{and} \quad \lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} v(x,\ y) = v_0.$$

By (9) and (10), we have

$$\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} (au(x,\ y) - bv(x,\ y)) = au_0 - bv_0$$

and

$$\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} (bu(x,\ y) + av(x,\ y)) = bu_0 + av_0.$$

However, $\text{Re}\,(cf(z)) = au(x,\ y) - bv(x,\ y)$ and $\text{Im}\,(cf(z)) = bu(x,\ y) + av(x,\ y)$. Therefore, by Theorem 3.1.1,

$$\lim_{z\to z_0} cf(z) = au_0 - bv_0 + i\,(bu_0 + av_0) = cL.$$ ☰

Of course the results in Theorems 3.1.2(*ii*) and 3.1.2(*iii*) hold for any finite sum of functions or finite product of functions, respectively. After establishing a couple of

basic complex limits, we can use Theorem 3.1.2 to compute a large number of limits in a very direct manner. The two basic limits that we need are those of the **complex constant function** $f(z) = c$, where c is a complex constant, and the **complex identity function** $f(z) = z$. In Problem 45 in Exercises 3.1 you will be asked to show that:

$$\lim_{z \to z_0} c = c, \quad c \text{ a complex constant,} \tag{15}$$

and

$$\lim_{z \to z_0} z = z_0. \tag{16}$$

The following example illustrates how these basic limits can be combined with the Theorem 3.1.2 to compute limits of complex rational functions.

EXAMPLE 4 Computing Limits with Theorem 3.1.2

Use Theorem 3.1.2 and the basic limits (15) and (16) to compute the limits

(**a**) $\displaystyle\lim_{z \to i} \frac{(3+i)z^4 - z^2 + 2z}{z+1}$

(**b**) $\displaystyle\lim_{z \to 1+\sqrt{3}i} \frac{z^2 - 2z + 4}{z - 1 - \sqrt{3}i}$

Solution (**a**) By Theorem 3.1.2(*iii*) and (16), we have:

$$\lim_{z \to i} z^2 = \lim_{z \to i} z \cdot z = \left(\lim_{z \to i} z\right) \cdot \left(\lim_{z \to i} z\right) = i \cdot i = -1.$$

Similarly, $\lim_{z \to i} z^4 = i^4 = 1$. Using these limits, Theorems 3.1.2(*i*), 3.1.2(*ii*), and the limit in (16), we obtain:

$$\begin{aligned} \lim_{z \to i} \left((3+i)z^4 - z^2 + 2z\right) &= (3+i) \lim_{z \to i} z^4 - \lim_{z \to i} z^2 + 2 \lim_{z \to i} z \\ &= (3+i)(1) - (-1) + 2(i) \\ &= 4 + 3i, \end{aligned}$$

and $\lim_{z \to i} (z+1) = 1 + i$. Therefore, by Theorem 3.1.2(*iv*), we have:

$$\lim_{z \to i} \frac{(3+i)z^4 - z^2 + 2z}{z+1} = \frac{\lim_{z \to i} \left((3+i)z^4 - z^2 + 2z\right)}{\lim_{z \to i} (z+1)} = \frac{4+3i}{1+i}.$$

After carrying out the division, we obtain $\displaystyle\lim_{z \to i} \frac{(3+i)z^4 - z^2 + 2z}{z+1} = \frac{7}{2} - \frac{1}{2}i$.

(**b**) In order to find $\displaystyle\lim_{z \to 1+\sqrt{3}i} \frac{z^2 - 2z + 4}{z - 1 - \sqrt{3}i}$, we proceed as in (a):

$$\begin{aligned} \lim_{z \to 1+\sqrt{3}i} \left(z^2 - 2z + 4\right) &= \left(1 + \sqrt{3}i\right)^2 - 2\left(1 + \sqrt{3}i\right) + 4 \\ &= -2 + 2\sqrt{3}i - 2 - 2\sqrt{3}i + 4 = 0, \end{aligned}$$

and $\lim_{z \to 1+\sqrt{3}i} \left(z - 1 - \sqrt{3}i\right) = 1 + \sqrt{3}i - 1 - \sqrt{3}i = 0$. It appears that we cannot apply Theorem 3.1.2(*iv*) since the limit of the denominator is 0. However, in the previous calculation we found that $1 + \sqrt{3}i$ is a root of the quadratic polynomial

$z^2 - 2z + 4$. From Section 1.6, recall that if z_1 is a root of a quadratic polynomial, then $z - z_1$ is a factor of the polynomial. Using long division, we find that

$$z^2 - 2z + 4 = (z - 1 + \sqrt{3}i)(z - 1 - \sqrt{3}i).$$

See (5) in Section 1.6. Because z is not allowed to take on the value $1 + \sqrt{3}i$ in the limit, we can cancel the common factor in the numerator and denominator of the rational function. That is,

$$\lim_{z\to 1+\sqrt{3}i} \frac{z^2 - 2z + 4}{z - 1 - \sqrt{3}i} = \lim_{z\to 1+\sqrt{3}i} \frac{(z - 1 + \sqrt{3}i)(z - 1 - \sqrt{3}i)}{z - 1 - \sqrt{3}i}$$

$$= \lim_{z\to 1+\sqrt{3}i} (z - 1 + \sqrt{3}i).$$

By Theorem 3.1.2(*ii*) and the limits in (15) and (16), we then have

$$\lim_{z\to 1+\sqrt{3}i} (z - 1 + \sqrt{3}i) = 1 + \sqrt{3}i - 1 + \sqrt{3}i = 2\sqrt{3}i.$$

Therefore, $\lim\limits_{z\to 1+\sqrt{3}i} \dfrac{z^2 - 2z + 4}{z - 1 - \sqrt{3}i} = 2\sqrt{3}i.$ ☰

In Section 3.2 we will calculate the limit in part (b) of Example 4 in a different manner.

3.1.2 Continuity

Continuity of Real Functions Recall that if the limit of a real function f as x approaches the point x_0 exists and agrees with the value of the function f at x_0, then we say that f is *continuous* at the point x_0. In symbols, this definition is given by:

Continuity of a Real Function $f(x)$

A function f is continuous at a point x_0 if $\lim\limits_{x\to x_0} f(x) = f(x_0)$. (17)

Observe that in order for the equation $\lim\limits_{x\to x_0} f(x) = f(x_0)$ in (17) to be satisfied, three things must be true. The limit $\lim\limits_{x\to x_0} f(x)$ must exist, f must be defined at x_0, and these two values must be equal. If any one of these three conditions fail, then f cannot be continuous at x_0. For example, the function

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} x^2, & x < 0 \\ x - 1, & x \geq 0 \end{cases},$$

illustrated in Figure 3.1.3 is not continuous at the point $x = 0$ since $\lim\limits_{x\to 0} f(x)$ does not exist. On a similar note, even though $\lim\limits_{x\to 1} \dfrac{x^2 - 1}{x - 1} = 2$, the function $f(x) = \dfrac{x^2 - 1}{x - 1}$ is not continuous at $x = 1$ because $f(1)$ is not defined.

In real analysis, we visualize the concept of continuity using the graph of the function f. Informally, a function f is continuous if there are no breaks or holes

in the graph of f. Since we cannot graph a complex function, our discussion of the continuity of complex functions will be primarily algebraic in nature.

Continuity of Complex Functions The definition of continuity for a complex function is, in essence, the same as that for a real function. That is, a complex function f is continuous at a point z_0 if the limit of f as z approaches z_0 exists and is the same as the value of f at z_0. This gives the following definition for complex functions, which is analogous to (17).

DEFINITION 3.1.2 Continuity of a Complex Function

A complex function f is **continuous at a point** z_0 if

$$\lim_{z \to z_0} f(z) = f(z_0).$$

The definition of continuity can also be given using epsilons and deltas:

A function f is continuous at z_0 if for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there exists a $\delta > 0$ such that $|f(z) - f(z_0)| < \varepsilon$ whenever $0 < |z - z_0| < \delta$.

This epsilon-delta definition will be used to establish certain theorems on integration in Chapter 5. Analogous to real functions, if a complex f is continuous at a point, then the following three conditions must be met.

Criteria for Continuity at a Point

A complex function f is continuous at a point z_0 if each of the following three conditions hold:

(*i*) $\lim_{z \to z_0} f(z)$ *exists,*

(*ii*) f *is defined at* z_0, *and*

(*iii*) $\lim_{z \to z_0} f(z) = f(z_0)$.

If a complex function f is not continuous at a point z_0 then we say that f is **discontinuous** at z_0. For example, the function $f(z) = \dfrac{1}{1+z^2}$ is discontinuous at $z = i$ and $z = -i$.

EXAMPLE 5 Checking Continuity at a Point

Consider the function $f(z) = z^2 - iz + 2$. In order to determine if f is continuous at, say, the point $z_0 = 1 - i$, we must find $\lim_{z \to z_0} f(z)$ and $f(z_0)$, then check to see whether these two complex values are equal. From Theorem 3.1.2 and the limits in (15) and (16) we obtain:

$$\lim_{z \to z_0} f(z) = \lim_{z \to 1-i} \left(z^2 - iz + 2\right) = (1-i)^2 - i(1-i) + 2 = 1 - 3i.$$

Furthermore, for $z_0 = 1 - i$ we have:

$$f(z_0) = f(1-i) = (1-i)^2 - i(1-i) + 2 = 1 - 3i.$$

Since $\lim_{z \to z_0} f(z) = f(z_0)$, we conclude that $f(z) = z^2 - iz + 2$ is continuous at the point $z_0 = 1 - i$. ☰

As Example 5 indicates, the continuity of a complex polynomial or a rational function is easily determined using Theorem 3.1.2 and the limits in (15) and (16). More complicated functions, however, often require other techniques.

EXAMPLE 6 Discontinuity of Principal Square Root Function

Show that the principal square root function $f(z) = z^{1/2}$ defined by (8) of Section 2.4 is discontinuous at the point $z_0 = -1$.

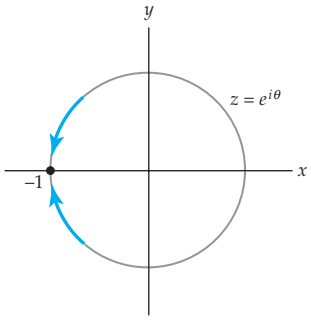


FIGURE 3.1.5 Figure for Example 6

Solution We show that $f(z) = z^{1/2} = \sqrt{r}e^{i\theta/2}$, $\theta = \text{Arg}(z)$, is discontinuous at $z_0 = -1$ by demonstrating that the limit as z approaches -1 does not exist. We do so by finding two ways of letting z approach -1 that yield different values of the limit. First, consider z approaching -1 along the quarter of the unit circle lying in the second quadrant. See FIGURE 3.1.5. For this approach we have $z = e^{i\theta}$, $\pi/2 < \theta < \pi$, and θ approaching π. Thus, by setting $r = 1$ and letting θ approach π, we obtain:

$$\lim_{z\to -1} z^{1/2} = \lim_{z\to -1} \sqrt{r}e^{i\theta/2} = \lim_{\theta\to\pi} e^{i\theta/2}.$$

We evaluate this limit using Theorem 3.1.1:

$$\lim_{z\to -1} z^{1/2} = \lim_{\theta\to\pi} e^{i\theta/2} = \lim_{\theta\to\pi}\left(\cos\frac{\theta}{2} + i\sin\frac{\theta}{2}\right) = \cos\frac{\pi}{2} + i\sin\frac{\pi}{2} = i. \tag{18}$$

Next, we let z approach -1 along the quarter of the unit circle lying in the third quadrant. Again refer to Figure 3.1.5. Along this curve we have $z = e^{i\theta}$, $-\pi < \theta < -\pi/2$, and θ approaching $-\pi$. For these points:

$$\lim_{z\to -1} z^{1/2} = \lim_{\theta\to -\pi} e^{i\theta/2} = \lim_{\theta\to -\pi}\left(\cos\frac{\theta}{2} + i\sin\frac{\theta}{2}\right) = -i. \tag{19}$$

Because the complex values in (18) and (19) do not agree, we conclude that $\lim_{z\to -1} z^{1/2}$ does not exist. Therefore, $f(z) = z^{1/2}$ is discontinuous at $z_0 = -1$. ☰

In Definition 3.1.2 we defined continuity of a complex function f at a single point z_0 in the complex plane. We are often also interested in the continuity of a function on a set of points in the complex plane. A complex function f is **continuous on a set S** if f is continuous at z_0 for each z_0 in S. For example, using Theorem 3.1.2 and the limits in (15) and (16) we can show that $f(z) = z^2 - iz + 2$ is continuous at any point z_0 in the complex plane. Therefore, $f(z) = z^2 - iz + 2$ is continuous on $\mathbf{C}$. The function $f(z) = \dfrac{1}{z^2+1}$, on the other hand, is continuous on the set consisting of all complex z such that $z \neq \pm i$.

Properties of Continuous Functions

Because the concept of continuity is defined using the complex limit, various properties of complex limits can be translated into statements about continuity. The following result is an example of this.

THEOREM 3.1.3 Real and Imaginary Parts of a Continuous Function

If $f(z) = u(x, y) + iv(x, y)$ and $z_0 = x_0 + iy_0$, then the complex function f is continuous at the point z_0 if and only if both real functions u and v are continuous at the point (x_0, y_0).

Proof If f is continuous at z_0, then from Definition 3.1.2 we have:

$$\lim_{z \to z_0} f(z) = f(z_0) = u(x_0, y_0) + iv(x_0, y_0).$$

After making the identifications $u_0 = u(x_0, y_0)$ and $v_0 = v(x_0, y_0)$, Theorem 3.1.1 gives:

$$\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} u(x, y) = u(x_0, y_0) \quad \text{and} \quad \lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} v(x, y) = v(x_0, y_0).$$

Therefore, by the definition of continuity for real multivariable functions, both u and v are continuous at (x_0, y_0). Conversely, if u and v are continuous at (x_0, y_0), then

$$\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} u(x, y) = u(x_0, y_0) \quad \text{and} \quad \lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} v(x, y) = v(x_0, y_0).$$

It then follows from Theorem 3.1.1 that $\lim_{z \to z_0} f(z) = u(x_0, y_0) + iv(x_0, y_0) = f(z_0)$. Therefore, f is continuous by Definition 3.1.2. ☰

EXAMPLE 7 Checking Continuity Using Theorem 3.1.3

Show that the function $f(z) = \bar{z}$ is continuous on $\mathbf{C}$.

Solution According to Theorem 3.1.3, $f(z) = \bar{z} = \overline{x + iy} = x - iy$ is continuous at $z_0 = x_0 + iy_0$ if both $u(x, y) = x$ and $v(x, y) = -y$ are continuous at (x_0, y_0). Because u and v are two-variable polynomial functions, it follows from (13) that:

$$\lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} u(x, y) = x_0 \quad \text{and} \quad \lim_{(x,y)\to(x_0,y_0)} v(x, y) = -y_0.$$

This implies that u and v are continuous at (x_0, y_0), and, therefore, that f is continuous at $z_0 = x_0 + iy_0$. Since $z_0 = x_0 + iy_0$ was an arbitrary point, we conclude that the function $f(z) = \bar{z}$ is continuous on $\mathbf{C}$. ☰

The algebraic properties of complex limits from Theorem 3.1.2 can also be restated in terms of continuity of complex functions.

THEOREM 3.1.4 Properties of Continuous Functions

If f and g are continuous at the point z_0, then the following functions are continuous at the point z_0:

(*i*) cf, c a complex constant,

(*ii*) $f \pm g$,

(*iii*) $f \cdot g$, and

(*iv*) $\dfrac{f}{g}$, provided $g(z_0) \neq 0$.

Proof of (*ii*) We prove only (*ii*); proofs of the remaining parts are similar. Since f and g are continuous at z_0 we have that $\lim_{z \to z_0} f(z) = f(z_0)$ and $\lim_{z \to z_0} g(z) = g(z_0)$. From Theorem 3.1.2(*ii*), it follows that $\lim_{z \to z_0} (f(z) + g(z)) = f(z_0) + g(z_0)$. Therefore, $f + g$ is continuous at z_0 by Definition 3.1.2. ☰

Of course, the results of Theorems 3.1.4(*ii*) and 3.1.4(*iii*) extend to any finite sum or finite product of continuous functions, respectively. We can use these facts to show that complex polynomials are continuous functions.

THEOREM 3.1.5 Continuity of Polynomial Functions

Complex polynomial functions are continuous on the entire complex plane.

Proof Let $p(z) = a_n z^n + a_{n-1}z^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1 z + a_0$ be a complex polynomial function and let z_0 be any point in the complex plane $\mathbf{C}$. From (16) we have that the identity function $f(z) = z$ is continuous at z_0, and by repeated application of Theorem 3.1.4(*iii*), this implies that the power function $f(z) = z^n$, where n is an integer and $n \geq 1$, is continuous at this point as well. Moreover, (15) implies that every complex constant function $f(z) = c$ is continuous at z_0, and so it follows from Theorem 3.1.4(*i*) that each of the functions $a_n z^n$, $a_{n-1}z^{n-1}$, $\ldots$, $a_1 z$, and a_0 are continuous at z_0. Now from repeated application of Theorem 3.1.4(*ii*) we see that $p(z) = a_n z^n + a_{n-1}z^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1 z + a_0$ is continuous at z_0. Since z_0 was allowed to be any point in the complex plane, we have shown that the polynomial function p is continuous on the entire complex plane $\mathbf{C}$. ☰

Since a rational function $f(z) = p(z)/q(z)$ is quotient of the polynomial functions p and q, it follows from Theorem 3.1.5 and Theorem 3.1.4(*iv*) that f is continuous at every point z_0 for which $q(z_0) \neq 0$. In other words,

Continuity of Rational Functions

Rational functions are continuous on their domains.

Bounded Functions Continuous complex functions have many important properties that are analogous to properties of continuous real functions. For instance, if a real function f is continuous on a closed interval I on the real line, then f is bounded on I. This means that there is a real number $M > 0$ such that $|f(x)| \leq M$ for all x in I. A similar result for real multivariable functions states that if $F(x, y)$ is continuous on a closed and bounded region R of the Cartesian plane, then there is a real number $M > 0$ such that $|F(x, y)| \leq M$ for all (x, y) in R, and we say F is bounded on R.

Now suppose that the complex function $f(z) = u(x, y) + iv(x, y)$ is defined on a closed and bounded region R in the complex plane. As with real functions, we say that f is **bounded** on R if there exists a real constant $M > 0$ such that $|f(z)| < M$ for all z in R. If f is continuous on R, then Theorem 3.1.3 tells us that u and v are continuous real functions on R. It follows that $F(x, y) = \sqrt{[u(x, y)]^2 + [v(x, y)]^2}$ is also continuous on R. Because F is continuous on the closed and bounded region R, we conclude that F is bounded on R. That is, there is a real constant $M > 0$ such that $|F(x, y)| \leq M$ for all (x, y) in R. However, since $|f(z)| = F(x, y)$, we have that $|f(z)| \leq M$ for all z in R. In other words, the complex function f is bounded on R. This establishes the following important property of continuous complex functions.

A Bounding Property

If a complex function f is continuous on a closed and bounded region R, then f is bounded on R. That is, there is a real constant $M > 0$ such that $|f(z)| \leq M$ for all z in R.

While this result assures us that a bound M exists for f on R, it offers no practical approach to find it. One approach to find a bound is to use the triangle inequality. See

Example 3 in Section 1.2. Another approach to determine a bound is to use complex mappings. See Problems 38 and 39 in Exercises 2.3, Problems 55 and 56 in Exercises 2.4, and Problems 29 and 30 in Exercises 2.5. In Chapter 5, we will see that for a special class of important complex functions, the bound can only be attained by a point in the boundary of R.

Branches In Section 2.4 we discussed, briefly, the concept of a multiple-valued function $F(z)$ that assigns a set of complex numbers to the input z. (Recall that our convention is to always use uppercase letters such as F, G, and H to represent multiple-valued functions.) Examples of multiple-valued functions include $F(z) = z^{1/n}$, which assigns to the input z the set of n nth roots of z, and $G(z) = \arg(z)$, which assigns to the input z the infinite set of arguments of z. In practice, it is often the case that we need a consistent way of choosing just one of the roots of a complex number or, maybe, just one of the arguments of a complex number. That is, we are usually interested in computing just one of the values of a multiple-valued function. If we make this choice of value with the concept of continuity in mind, then we obtain a *function* that is called a *branch* of a multiple-valued function. In more rigorous terms, a **branch** of a multiple-valued function F is a function f_1 that is continuous on some domain and that assigns exactly one of the multiple-values of F to each point z in that domain.

Notation: Branches

When representing branches of a multiple-valued function F with functional notation, we will use lowercase letters with a numerical subscript such as f_1, f_2, and so on.

The requirement that a branch be continuous means that the domain of a branch is different from the domain of the multiple-valued function. For example, the multiple-valued function $F(z) = z^{1/2}$ that assigns to each input z the set of two square roots of z is defined for all nonzero complex numbers z. Even though the principal square root function $f(z) = z^{1/2}$ does assign exactly one value of F to each input z (namely, it assigns to z the principal square root of z), f *is not* a branch of F. The reason for this is that the principal square root function is not continuous on its domain. In particular, in Example 6 we showed that $f(z) = z^{1/2}$ is not continuous at $z_0 = -1$. The argument used in Example 6 can be easily modified to show that $f(z) = z^{1/2}$ is discontinuous at every point on the negative real axis. Therefore, in order to obtain a branch of $F(z) = z^{1/2}$ that agrees with the principal square root function, we must restrict the domain to exclude points on the negative real axis. This gives the function

$$f_1(z) = \sqrt{r}e^{i\theta/2}, \quad -\pi < \theta < \pi. \tag{20}$$

We call the function f_1 defined by (20) the **principal branch** of $F(z) = z^{1/2}$ because the value of θ represents the principal argument of z for all z in $\text{Dom}(f_1)$. In the following example we show that f_1 is, in fact, a branch of F.

EXAMPLE 8 A Branch of $F(z) = z^{1/2}$

Show that the function f_1 defined by (20) is a branch of the multiple-valued function $F(z) = z^{1/2}$.

Solution The domain of the function f_1 is the set defined by $|z| > 0$, $-\pi < \arg(z) < \pi$, shown in gray in FIGURE 3.1.6. From (8) of Section 2.4, we see

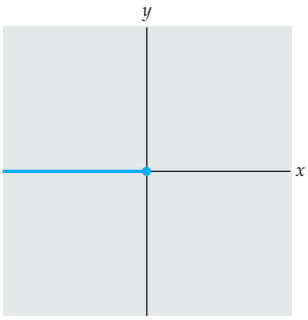
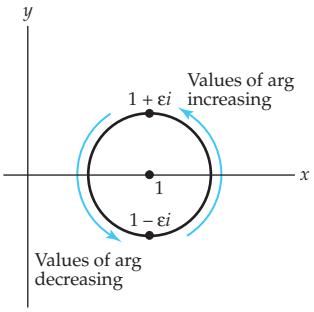


FIGURE 3.1.6 The domain D of the branch f_1

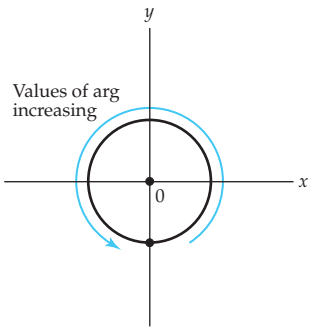
that the function f_1 agrees with the principal square root function f on this set. Thus, f_1 does assign to the input z exactly one of the values of $F(z) = z^{1/2}$. It remains to show that f_1 is a continuous function on its domain. In order to see that this is so, let z be a point with $|z| > 0$, $-\pi < \arg(z) < \pi$. If $z = x + iy$ and $x > 0$, then $z = re^{i\theta}$ where $r = \sqrt{x^2 + y^2}$ and $\theta = \tan^{-1}(y/x)$. Since $-\pi/2 < \tan^{-1}(y/x) < \pi/2$, the inequality $-\pi < \theta < \pi$ is satisfied. Thus, substituting the expressions for r and θ in (20) we obtain:

$$f_1(z) = \sqrt[4]{x^2 + y^2}\, e^{i \tan^{-1}(y/x)/2}$$
$$= \sqrt[4]{x^2 + y^2} \cos\left(\frac{\tan^{-1}(y/x)}{2}\right) + i\sqrt[4]{x^2 + y^2} \sin\left(\frac{\tan^{-1}(y/x)}{2}\right).$$

Because the real and imaginary parts of f_1 are continuous real functions for $x > 0$, we conclude from Theorem 3.1.3 that f_1 is continuous for $x > 0$. A similar argument can be made for points with $y > 0$ using $\theta = \cot^{-1}(x/y)$ and for points with $y < 0$ using $\theta = -\cot^{-1}(x/y)$. In each case, we conclude from Theorem 3.1.3 that f_1 is continuous. Therefore, the function f_1 defined in (20) is a branch of the multiple-valued function $F(z) = z^{1/2}$. ☰



(a) $z = 1$ is not a branch point



(b) $z = 0$ is a branch point

FIGURE 3.1.7 $G(z) = \arg(z)$

Branch Cuts and Points Although the multiple-valued function $F(z) = z^{1/2}$ is defined for all nonzero complex numbers $\mathbf{C}$, the principal branch f_1 is defined only on the domain $|z| > 0$, $-\pi < \arg(z) < \pi$. In general, a **branch cut** for a branch f_1 of a multiple-valued function F is a curve that is excluded from the domain of F so that f_1 is continuous on the remaining points. The nonpositive real axis, shown in color in Figure 3.1.6, is a branch cut for the principal branch f_1 given by (20) of the multiple-valued function $F(z) = z^{1/2}$. A different branch of F with the same branch cut is given by $f_2(z) = \sqrt{r}e^{i\theta/2}$, $\pi < \theta < 3\pi$. These branches are distinct because for, say, $z = i$ we have $f_1(i) = \frac{1}{2}\sqrt{2} + \frac{1}{2}\sqrt{2}i$, but $f_2(i) = -\frac{1}{2}\sqrt{2} - \frac{1}{2}\sqrt{2}i$. Notice that if we set $\phi = \theta - 2\pi$, then the branch f_2 can be expressed as $f_2(z) = \sqrt{r}e^{i(\phi+2\pi)/2} = \sqrt{r}e^{i\phi/2}e^{i\pi}$, $-\pi < \phi < \pi$. Since $e^{i\pi} = -1$, this simplifies to $f_2(z) = -\sqrt{r}e^{i\phi/2}$, $-\pi < \phi < \pi$. Thus, we have shown that $f_2 = -f_1$. You can think of these two branches of $F(z) = z^{1/2}$ as being analogous to the positive and negative square roots of a positive real number. Other branches of $F(z) = z^{1/2}$ can be defined in a similar manner using any ray emanating from the origin as a branch cut. For example, $f_3(z) = \sqrt{r}e^{i\theta/2}$, $-3\pi/4 < \theta < 5\pi/4$, defines a branch of $F(z) = z^{1/2}$. The branch cut for f_3 is the ray $\arg(z) = -3\pi/4$ together with the point $z = 0$.

It is not a coincidence that the point $z = 0$ is on the branch cut for f_1, f_2, and f_3. The point $z = 0$ must be on the branch cut of *every* branch of the multiple-valued function $F(z) = z^{1/2}$. In general, a point with the property that it is on the branch cut of every branch is called a **branch point** of F. Alternatively, a branch point is a point z_0 with the following property: If we traverse any circle centered at z_0 with sufficiently small radius starting at a point z_1, then the values of any branch do not return to the value at z_1. For example, consider any branch of the multiple-valued function $G(z) = \arg(z)$. At the point, say, $z_0 = 1$, if we traverse the small circle $|z - 1| = \varepsilon$ counterclockwise from the point $z_1 = 1 - \varepsilon i$, then the values of the branch increase until we reach the point $1 + \varepsilon i$ and then the values of the branch decrease back down to the value of the branch at z_1. See FIGURE 3.1.7(a). This means that the point $z_0 = 1$ is not a branch point. On the other hand, suppose we repeat this process for the point $z_0 = 0$. For the small circle $|z| = \varepsilon$, the values of the branch increase along the entire circle. See Figure 3.1.7(b). By the time we have returned to our starting point, the value of the branch is no

longer the same; it has increased by 2π. Therefore, $z_0 = 0$ is a branch point of $G(z) = \arg(z)$.

Remarks COMPARISON WITH REAL ANALYSIS

(*i*) As with real analysis, we can define the concepts of infinite limits and limits at infinity for complex functions. Intuitively, the limit $\lim_{z\to\infty} f(z) = L$ means that values of the function f can be made arbitrarily close to L if values of z are chosen so that $|z|$ is sufficiently large. A precise statement of a **limit at infinity** is:

The limit of f as z tends to ∞ exists and is equal to L if for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there exists a $\delta > 0$ such that $|f(z) - L| < \varepsilon$ whenever $|z| > 1/\delta$.

Using this definition it is not hard to show that:

$$\lim_{z\to\infty} f(z) = L \text{ if and only if } \lim_{z\to 0} f\left(\frac{1}{z}\right) = L. \tag{21}$$

Similarly, the **infinite limit** $\lim_{z\to z_0} f(z) = \infty$ is defined by:

The limit of f as z tends to z_0 is ∞ if for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there is a $\delta > 0$ such that $|f(z)| > 1/\varepsilon$ whenever $0 < |z - z_0| < \delta$.

From this definition we obtain the following result:

$$\lim_{z\to z_0} f(z) = \infty \text{ if and only if } \lim_{z\to z_0} \frac{1}{f(z)} = 0. \tag{22}$$

See Problems 21–26 in Exercises 3.1.

(*ii*) In real analysis we visualize a continuous function as a function whose graph has no breaks or holes in it. It is natural to ask if there is an analogous property for continuous complex functions. The answer is yes, but this property must be stated in terms of complex mappings. We begin by recalling that a parametric curve defined by parametric equations $x = x(t)$ and $y = y(t)$ is called continuous if the real functions x and y are continuous. In a similar manner, we say that a complex parametric curve defined by $z(t) = x(t) + iy(t)$ is **continuous** if both $x(t)$ and $y(t)$ are continuous real functions. As with parametric curves in the Cartesian plane, a continuous parametric curve in the complex plane has no breaks or holes in it. Such curves provide a means to visualize continuous complex functions.

If a complex function f is continuous on a set S, then the image of every continuous parametric curve in S must be a continuous curve.

To see why this is so, consider a continuous complex function $f(z) = u(x,\ y) + iv(x,\ y)$ and a continuous parametric curve defined by $z(t) = x(t) + iy(t)$. From Theorem 3.1.3, $u(x,\ y)$ and $v(x,\ y)$ are continuous real functions. Moreover, since $x(t)$ and $y(t)$ are continuous functions, it follows from multivariable calculus that the compositions $u(x(t),\ y(t))$ and $v(x(t),\ y(t))$ are continuous functions. Therefore, the image of the parametric curve given by $w(t) = f(z(t)) = u(x(t),\ y(t)) + iv(x(t),\ y(t))$ is continuous. See Problems 59–62 in Exercises 3.1.

EXERCISES 3.1

Answers to selected odd-numbered problems begin on page ANS-10.

3.1.1 Limits

In Problems 1–8, use Theorem 3.1.1 and the properties of real limits on page 103 to compute the given complex limit.

1. $\lim_{z\to 2i}\left(z^2-\bar{z}\right)$

2. $\lim_{z\to 1+i}\dfrac{z-\bar{z}}{z+\bar{z}}$

3. $\lim_{z\to 1-i}\left(|z|^2-i\bar{z}\right)$

4. $\lim_{z\to 3i}\dfrac{\text{Im}\left(z^2\right)}{z+\text{Re}\,(z)}$

5. $\lim_{z\to \pi i} e^z$

6. $\lim_{z\to 0}\dfrac{z^2+\bar{z}^2}{\text{Re}(z)+\text{Im}(z)}$

7. $\lim_{z\to 0}\dfrac{e^z-e^{\bar{z}}}{\text{Im}(z)}$

8. $\lim_{z\to 1+i}\left(\log_e\left|x^2+y^2\right|+i\arctan\dfrac{y}{x}\right)$

In Problems 9–16, use Theorem 3.1.2 and the basic limits (15) and (16) to compute the given complex limit.

9. $\lim_{z\to 2-i}\left(z^2-z\right)$

10. $\lim_{z\to i}\left(z^5-z^2+z\right)$

11. $\lim_{z\to e^{i\pi/4}}\left(z+\dfrac{1}{z}\right)$

12. $\lim_{z\to 1+i}\dfrac{z^2+1}{z^2-1}$

13. $\lim_{z\to -i}\dfrac{z^4-1}{z+i}$

14. $\lim_{z\to 2+i}\dfrac{z^2-(2+i)^2}{z-(2+i)}$

15. $\lim_{z\to z_0}\dfrac{(az+b)-(az_0+b)}{z-z_0}$

16. $\lim_{z\to -3+i\sqrt{2}}\dfrac{z+3-i\sqrt{2}}{z^2+6z+11}$

17. Consider the limit $\lim_{z\to 0}\dfrac{\text{Re}(z)}{\text{Im}(z)}$.

(**a**) What value does the limit approach as z approaches 0 along the line $y=x$?

(**b**) What value does the limit approach as z approaches 0 along the imaginary axis?

(**c**) Based on your answers for (a) and (b), what can you say about $\lim_{z\to 0}\dfrac{\text{Re}(z)}{\text{Im}(z)}$?

18. Consider the limit $\lim_{z\to i}(|z|+i\,\text{Arg}\,(iz))$.

(**a**) What value does the limit approach as z approaches i along the unit circle $|z|=1$ in the first quadrant?

(**b**) What value does the limit approach as z approaches i along the unit circle $|z|=1$ in the second quadrant?

(**c**) Based on your answers for (a) and (b), what can you say about $\lim_{z\to i}(|z|+i\,\text{Arg}\,(iz))$?

19. Consider the limit $\lim_{z\to 0}\left(\dfrac{z}{\bar{z}}\right)^2$.

(**a**) What value does the limit approach as z approaches 0 along the real axis?

(**b**) What value does the limit approach as z approaches 0 along the imaginary axis?

(**c**) Do the answers from (a) and (b) imply that $\lim_{z\to 0}\left(\dfrac{z}{\bar{z}}\right)^2$ exists? Explain.

(**d**) What value does the limit approach as z approaches 0 along the line $y=x$?

(**e**) What can you say about $\lim_{z\to 0}\left(\dfrac{z}{\bar{z}}\right)^2$?

20. Consider the limit $\lim\limits_{z\to 0}\left(\dfrac{2y^2}{x^2}-\dfrac{x^2-y^2}{y^2}i\right)$.

(**a**) What value does the limit approach as z approaches 0 along the line $y=x$?

(**b**) What value does the limit approach as z approaches 0 along the line $y=-x$?

(**c**) Do the answers from (a) and (b) imply that $\lim\limits_{z\to 0}\left(\dfrac{2y^2}{x^2}-\dfrac{x^2-y^2}{y^2}i\right)$ exists? Explain.

(**d**) What value does the limit approach as z approaches 0 along the line $y=2x$?

(**e**) What can you say about $\lim\limits_{z\to 0}\left(\dfrac{2y^2}{x^2}-\dfrac{x^2-y^2}{y^2}i\right)$?

Problems 21–26 involve concepts of infinite limits and limits at infinity discussed in (*i*) of the *Remarks*. In Problems 21–26, use (21) or (22), Theorem 3.1.2, and the basic limits (15) and (16) to compute the given complex limit.

21. $\lim\limits_{z\to\infty}\dfrac{z^2+iz-2}{(1+2i)z^2}$

22. $\lim\limits_{z\to\infty}\dfrac{iz+1}{2z-i}$

23. $\lim\limits_{z\to i}\dfrac{z^2-1}{z^2+1}$

24. $\lim\limits_{z\to -i/2}\dfrac{(1-i)z+i}{2z+i}$

25. $\lim\limits_{z\to\infty}\dfrac{z^2-(2+3i)z+1}{iz-3}$

26. $\lim\limits_{z\to i}\dfrac{z^2+1}{z^2+z+1-i}$

3.1.2 Continuity

In Problems 27–34, show that the function f is continuous at the given point.

27. $f(z)=z^2-iz+3-2i;\ z_0=2-i$

28. $f(z)=z^3-\dfrac{1}{z};\ z_0=3i$

29. $f(z)=\dfrac{z^3}{z^3+3z^2+z};\ z_0=i$

30. $f(z)=\dfrac{z-3i}{z^2+2z-1};\ z_0=1+i$

31. $f(z)=\begin{cases}\dfrac{z^3-1}{z-1}, & |z|\neq 1\\ 3, & |z|=1\end{cases};\ z_0=1$

32. $f(z)=\begin{cases}\dfrac{z^3-1}{z^2+z+1}, & |z|\neq 1\\ \dfrac{-1+i\sqrt{3}}{2}, & |z|=1\end{cases};\ z_0=\dfrac{-1+i\sqrt{3}}{2}$

33. $f(z)=\bar{z}-3\,\mathrm{Re}(z)+i;\ z_0=3-2i$

34. $f(z)=\dfrac{\mathrm{Re}(z)}{z+iz}-2z^2;\ z_0=e^{i\pi/4}$

In Problems 35–40, show that the function f is discontinuous at the given point.

35. $f(z)=\dfrac{z^2+1}{z+i};\ z_0=-i$

36. $f(z)=\dfrac{1}{|z|-1};\ z_0=i$

37. $f(z)=\mathrm{Arg}(z);\ z=-1$

38. $f(z)=\mathrm{Arg}(iz);\ z_0=i$

39. $f(z) = \begin{cases} \dfrac{z^3-1}{z-1}, & |z| \neq 1 \\ 3, & |z| = 1 \end{cases}$; $z_0 = i$

40. $f(z) = \begin{cases} \dfrac{z}{|z|}, & z \neq 0 \\ 1, & z = 0 \end{cases}$; $z_0 = 0$

In Problems 41–44, use Theorem 3.1.3 to determine the largest region in the complex plane on which the function f is continuous.

41. $f(z) = \text{Re}(z)\,\text{Im}(z)$

42. $f(z) = \bar{z}$

43. $f(z) = \dfrac{z-1}{z\bar{z}-4}$

44. $f(z) = \dfrac{z^2}{(|z|-1)\,\text{Im}(z)}$

Focus on Concepts

45. Use Theorem 3.1.1 to prove:

(**a**) $\lim\limits_{z\to z_0} c = c$, where c is a constant.

(**b**) $\lim\limits_{z\to z_0} z = z_0$.

46. Use Theorem 3.1.1 to show that $\lim\limits_{z\to z_0} \bar{z} = \bar{z}_0$.

47. Use Theorem 3.1.2 and Problem 46 to show that

(**a**) $\lim\limits_{z\to z_0} \text{Re}(z) = \text{Re}(z_0)$.

(**b**) $\lim\limits_{z\to z_0} \text{Im}(z) = \text{Im}(z_0)$.

(**c**) $\lim\limits_{z\to z_0} |z| = |z_0|$.

48. Use Theorem 3.1.1 to prove part (*ii*) of Theorem 3.1.2.

49. The following is an epsilon-delta proof that $\lim\limits_{z\to z_0} z = z_0$. Fill in the missing parts.

Proof By Definition 3.1.1, $\lim\limits_{z\to z_0} z = z_0$ if for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there is a $\delta > 0$ such that $|_____| < \varepsilon$ whenever $0 < |_____| < \delta$. Setting $\delta =$ _____ will ensure that the previous statement is true.

50. The following is an epsilon-delta proof that $\lim\limits_{z\to z_0} \bar{z} = \bar{z}_0$. Provide the missing justifications in the proof.

Proof By Definition 3.1.1, $\lim\limits_{z\to z_0} \bar{z} = \bar{z}_0$ if for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there is a $\delta > 0$ such that $|_____| < \varepsilon$ whenever $0 < |_____| < \delta$. By properties of complex modulus and conjugation, $|z - z_0| = \left|\overline{z - z_0}\right| = |_____|$. Therefore, if $0 < |z - z_0| < \delta$ and $\delta =$ _____, then $|\bar{z} - \bar{z}_0| < \varepsilon$.

51. In this problem we will develop an epsilon-delta proof that $\lim\limits_{z\to 1+i} ((1-i)\,z + 2i) = 2 + 2i$.

(**a**) Write down the epsilon-delta definition (Definition 3.1.1) of $\lim\limits_{z\to 1+i} [(1-i)\,z + 2i] = 2 + 2i$.

(**b**) Factor out $(1-i)$ from the inequality involving ε (from part (a)) and simplify. Now rewrite this inequality in the form $|z - (1+i)| <$ _____.

(**c**) Based on your work from part (b), what should δ be set equal to?

(**d**) Write an epsilon-delta proof that $\lim\limits_{z\to 1+i} [(1-i)\,z + 2i] = 2 + 2i$.

52. In this problem we will develop an epsilon-delta proof that $\lim\limits_{z\to 2i} \dfrac{2z^2 - 3iz + 2}{z - 2i} = 5i$.

(**a**) Write down the epsilon-delta definition (Definition 3.1.1) of $\lim\limits_{z\to 2i} \dfrac{2z^2 - 3iz + 2}{z - 2i} = 5i$.

(**b**) Simplify the inequality involving ε (from part (a)), then rewrite this inequality in the form $|z - 2i| <$ _____.